The Regulatory Perimeter: Counterfactual CFIUS Jurisdiction, Distance Discontinuities, and the Patchwork Problem in Foreign Agricultural Land Oversight

Robert J. Green
Independent Researcher, Melbourne, Florida, USA
robert@rjgreenresearch.org | ORCID: 0009-0002-9097-1021
SSRN: ssrn.com/author=10825096 | GitHub: github.com/rjgreenresearch
April 2026

The Regulatory Perimeter: Counterfactual CFIUS Jurisdiction, Distance Discontinuities, and the Patchwork Problem in Foreign Agricultural Land Oversight

Abstract

This paper evaluates the effectiveness of the CFIUS real estate review regime — the federal government's primary mechanism for screening foreign agricultural land acquisitions near military installations — by measuring what fraction of documented Chinese-linked agricultural holdings actually fall within CFIUS jurisdiction. Using a novel geocoded database of all 230 installations listed in CFIUS Appendix A across four successive regulatory regimes (2018–2024), matched against 171 Chinese-linked agricultural holdings from USDA AFIDA data across 119 counties, the analysis finds that even under the most expansive current rules (effective December 2024), 50.4 percent of counties holding 33.1 percent of acreage remain outside CFIUS jurisdiction. The 1-mile proximity threshold (Part 1) covers zero agricultural holdings; all coverage derives from the 100-mile extended range (Part 2). The 2024 expansion — which added 59 installations — captured only 6 additional counties, while a site replacement in Iowa created a coverage regression that dropped 4 Missouri counties (35,867 acres) outside the perimeter. A previously unrecognized structural gap emerges from the Part 1/Part 2 classification: 30 counties are within 100 miles of a Part 1 installation but outside jurisdiction because Part 1 carries only a 1-mile threshold; reclassifying all Part 1 sites to Part 2 would increase coverage from 49.6 to 74.8 percent without adding a single new installation. Multiplying the jurisdictional gap by the 92.7 percent beneficial ownership visibility gap documented in the companion paper yields an effective federal detection probability of approximately 3.6 percent. A multi-threshold boundary discontinuity analysis at 25, 50, 75, 100, and 125 miles finds no statistically significant density discontinuities, though directional

asymmetry at the 100-mile threshold is suggestive. A difference-in-differences analysis of 21 state-level restrictions cannot isolate treatment effects from the concurrent 54 percent decline in Chinese-attributed holdings driven by USDA data reclassification. The Sun Guangxin case — approximately 130,000 acres acquired near Laughlin Air Force Base through a Texas limited partnership while Texas granted aliens equal property rights, CFIUS had no jurisdiction, and the ownership structure was invisible to federal analysis — illustrates all three dimensions of the compound gap in a single documented acquisition.

JEL Classification: F21, H56, K22, L51, Q15, R52

Keywords: CFIUS, FIRRMA, foreign agricultural investment, regulatory economics, national security, beneficial ownership, spatial analysis

1. Introduction

The Committee on Foreign Investment in the United States gained authority to review foreign real estate transactions near military installations through the Foreign Investment Risk Review Modernization Act of 2018. The implementing regulation, 31 CFR Part 802, creates a two-tier proximity structure: a 1-mile review perimeter around installations listed in Part 1 of Appendix A, and a 100-mile perimeter around installations listed in Part 2. The Appendix A site list has been expanded three times — in February 2020 (163 sites), September 2023 (171 sites), and December 2024 (227 sites) — each expansion responding to identified gaps in coverage.

The Fufeng Group case illustrates the regulatory dynamics that motivate this analysis. In 2021–2022, a Chinese company purchased 370 acres approximately 12 miles from Grand Forks Air Force Base in North Dakota. In December 2022, CFIUS determined the transaction was "not a covered transaction" because Grand Forks AFB was not on the Appendix A site list. The U.S. Air Force subsequently assessed the acquisition as presenting "a significant threat to national security" in a January 2023 letter to Senators Hoeven and Cramer. The September 2023 expansion was a direct legislative and executive response, adding Grand Forks AFB and seven other installations to Part 2. The regulatory gap was real, identified, and closed — for that specific site. The question this paper asks is whether each successive expansion actually closes the aggregate gap it is designed to close, and what fraction of adversarial-nation agricultural holdings the framework still cannot reach.

Despite three rounds of site-list expansion, active Congressional interest (the PASS Act, bipartisan support since 2022), a Government Accountability Office audit identifying critical analytical gaps (GAO-24-106337), and 25 state-level legislative responses, no peer-reviewed study has empirically measured what fraction of documented foreign agricultural holdings actually falls within CFIUS jurisdiction. This paper fills that gap. Using the complete USDA Agricultural Foreign Investment Disclosure Act (AFIDA) detailed holdings for 2024 — 49,548 records, filtered to 171 Chinese-linked holdings across 119 counties totaling 275,232 acres — the

analysis classifies each county as covered or not covered under each of four successive regulatory regimes.

The counterfactual simulation reveals that CFIUS jurisdiction has expanded from zero (pre-FIRRMA) to 49.6 percent of counties under the current regime — but that more than half of Chinese-linked agricultural holdings remain outside the federal review perimeter, and that the marginal gain from each successive expansion is declining sharply. The 2024 rule added 59 installations but captured only 6 additional counties. The paper also identifies a previously unrecognized structural inefficiency: 30 counties (25.2 percentage points of potential coverage) are within 100 miles of existing Appendix A installations but outside CFIUS jurisdiction because those installations are classified as Part 1 (1-mile threshold) rather than Part 2 (100-mile threshold). Reclassifying Part 1 sites to Part 2 would close more of the jurisdictional gap than all three prior expansions combined, requiring no new installations, no new legislation, and no additional appropriations.

This paper is the third in a series. The companion papers provide the spatial analysis (Article 1: statistically significant clustering at multiple thresholds, 3.4× enrichment at 50 miles with $p < 0.001$ against 10,000 Monte Carlo permutations) and the beneficial ownership analysis (Article 2: 92.7 percent of Chinese-linked AFIDA entities invisible to federal ownership analysis through the SEC, AFIDA, and state Secretary of State systems, using SECMap network analysis across 554 entities and 12.3 million ownership edges). This paper completes the trilogy by measuring whether the regulatory framework designed to address the pattern identified in Articles 1 and 2 actually captures it. The compound gap — the product of the jurisdictional gap, the visibility gap, and the state patchwork gap — yields an effective federal detection probability of approximately 3.6 percent.

2. Institutional Background

2.1 The Evolution of CFIUS Real Estate Jurisdiction

Prior to FIRRMA, CFIUS had no authority to review transactions based on the location of real estate alone. Its jurisdiction was limited to transactions that could result in foreign control of a U.S. business — a corporate control test that did not reach passive real estate holdings, agricultural land purchases, or property acquisitions that conveyed no operating business. Section 721(a)(4)(B)(ii) of the Defense Production Act, as amended by FIRRMA, expanded this authority to cover real estate transactions where the property is "in close proximity to a United States military installation or another facility or property of the U.S. Government that is sensitive for reasons relating to national security" and "could reasonably provide the foreign person the ability to collect intelligence on activities being conducted at such an installation, facility, or property."

The Treasury Department implemented this authority through 31 CFR Part 802, effective February 13, 2020 (85 FR 3158). The regulation establishes a two-tier distance structure. "Close proximity" is defined at §802.203 as the area extending outward one mile from the boundary of a relevant site (Part 1 of Appendix A). "Extended range" at §802.211 extends outward 100 miles (Part 2). The Department of Defense identified the installations listed in Appendix A "based upon an evaluation of national security considerations" (85 FR 3159). The two-tier distinction reflects the DoD's assessment that different installation categories warrant different geographic scopes of review — a distinction whose implications for agricultural land oversight this paper evaluates.

Two features of the Part 802 architecture are critical for understanding the agricultural coverage gap. First, CFIUS real estate filing is voluntary. Unlike the mandatory notification requirement for certain control transactions under Part 800, parties to covered real estate transactions may — but are not required to — file declarations or notices with CFIUS. The regime depends on voluntary compliance by the parties it is designed to screen. CFIUS has demonstrated willingness to conduct "non-notified outreaches" to assert jurisdiction (89 FR 88129), but the baseline operating model is voluntary disclosure. Second, Part 802 does not independently identify the foreign person involved in a transaction. It identifies geographic zones around specified sites within which certain transactions are subject to review. Whether a transaction within the zone involves a foreign person — and whether that person is connected to an adversarial nation — depends on information sources external to Part 802, including AFIDA filings, the Corporate Transparency Act, and state business registration records. The jurisdictional question (is this transaction within the perimeter?) and the identification question (does it involve a foreign person?) operate independently. Article 2 of this series demonstrated that the identification system fails for 92.7 percent of the relevant entities.

2.2 The Four Regulatory Regimes

The CFIUS Appendix A site list has been published in three versions through three Federal Register actions, creating four distinct regulatory regimes when the pre-FIRRMA baseline is included:

Regime	Effective	Part 1	Part 2	Total	Change	Triggering Event
1	Pre-Aug 2018	0	0	0	—	No real estate jurisdiction
2	Feb 13, 2020	131	32	163	+163	FIRRMA implementation (85 FR 3158)
3	Sep 22, 2023	131	40	171	+8	Fufeng Group gap (88 FR 57348)
4	Dec 9, 2024	162	65	227	+59, −3, 8 moved	DoD assessment (89 FR 88128)

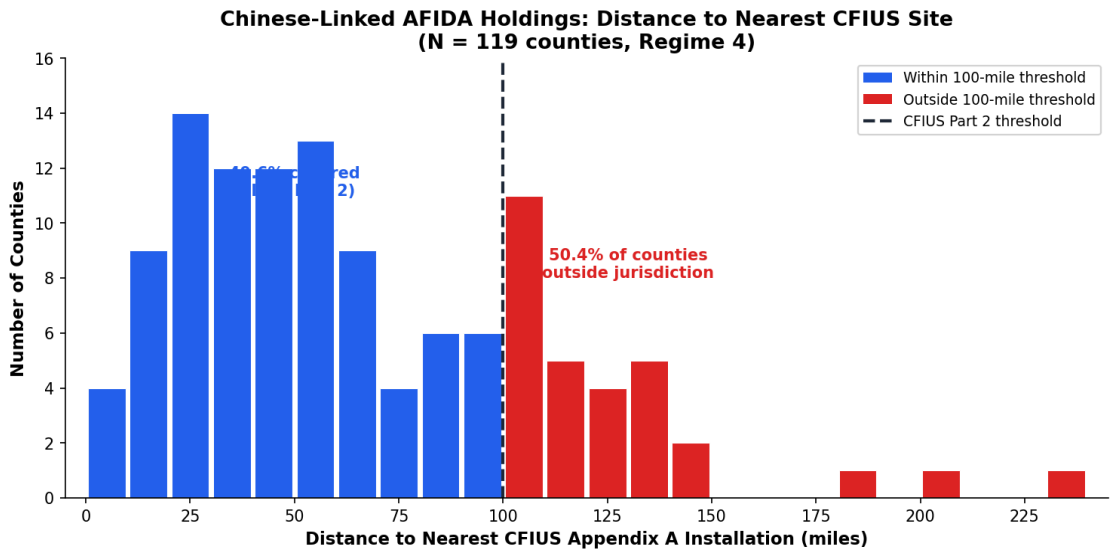

Figure 1: Distance Distribution of Chinese-Linked AFIDA Holdings to Nearest CFIUS Appendix A Installation

The Regime 3 additions responded directly to the Fufeng jurisdictional gap and the concurrent B-21 Raider bomber deployment to new bases. Seven of the eight additions were Air Force installations principally involved in B-21 development or deployment (Dyess, Edwards, Ellsworth, Grand Forks, Laughlin, Luke AFBs), plus the Iowa National Guard Joint Force Headquarters. All were added to Part 2 (100-mile threshold).

The Regime 4 expansion was broader — adding 40 installations to Part 1 (ammunition plants, depots, radar sites, logistics facilities, and research labs) and 19 to Part 2, while moving 8 installations from Part 1 to Part 2 and removing 3. The removals reflect consolidation rather than decommissioning: Cape Cod Air Force Station was absorbed into Joint Base Cape Cod; Iowa National Guard Joint Force Headquarters was replaced by Camp Dodge; Lackland Air Force Base was merged into Joint Base San Antonio. As Section 4.2 demonstrates, one of these replacements created an unintended coverage regression.

2.3 State-Level Restrictions

Twenty-five states have enacted foreign land ownership restrictions as of the 2025 legislative session. Twenty-one adopted new laws in the 2022–2025 wave: Indiana was the sole first-mover in 2022; twelve states followed in 2023 (Alabama, Arkansas, Florida, Idaho, Louisiana, Montana, North Dakota, Ohio, Oklahoma, Tennessee, Utah, Virginia); five more in 2024 (Georgia, Iowa, Mississippi, Nebraska, South Dakota); and three in 2025 (Arizona, Kentucky, Texas). Four states maintain pre-existing restrictions that predate the current wave (Kansas, Minnesota, Missouri, Wisconsin).

Provision heterogeneity across states is substantial. All 21 wave-era states target adversarial nations — principally China, Russia, Iran, and North Korea — rather than imposing blanket

restrictions on all foreign ownership. Three states impose outright bans on adversarial-nation agricultural land ownership (Arkansas, Florida, Idaho); the remaining 18 impose conditional restrictions with varying enforcement mechanisms. Only two states (Florida, Georgia) include military proximity provisions in their state law. Only two (Arkansas, Idaho) require divestment. Arkansas was the first to enforce a state restriction, ordering a subsidiary of Syngenta Seeds — ultimately owned by China's state-owned ChemChina through a six-tier corporate chain — to divest 160 acres in October 2023.

The Texas case is analytically significant for the compound gap analysis. Texas repealed its foreign ownership restrictions in 1965 and from that year until SB 17 took effect on September 1, 2025, Texas Property Code §5.005 explicitly granted aliens "the same real and personal property rights as a United States citizen." SB 147 (2023), which would have restricted adversarial-nation land purchases, passed the Texas Senate but died in the House without becoming law. This means that when Sun Guangxin acquired approximately 130,000 acres near Laughlin Air Force Base through Brazos Highland Properties LP and Harvest Texas LLC, Texas had no legal barrier to foreign agricultural land ownership whatsoever. The first actual restriction is SB 17, signed June 2025, which prospectively prohibits new acquisitions but does not require divestment of holdings predating September 1, 2025.

2.4 The Visibility Gap

Article 2 of this series demonstrated that 92.7 percent of Chinese-linked AFIDA entities (508 of 548 analyzed using SECMap beneficial ownership network analysis across 12.3 million ownership edges) have no SEC filing presence. They are structurally invisible to the federal beneficial ownership analysis toolkit. The remaining 7.3 percent that are SEC-registered route through intermediary jurisdictions at a 90.8 percent rate (413 of 455 via Cayman Islands, Nevada, and Marshall Islands). The visibility gap is not a malfunction — it is a structural feature of American corporate architecture. The public/private divide, the Delaware incorporation model, and federalist Secretary of State sovereignty each independently contribute to an ownership disclosure environment that was designed to protect domestic commercial privacy, not to enable national security screening of foreign agricultural acquisitions.

The implication for CFIUS is direct: even if a transaction falls within the CFIUS Part 802 perimeter, the review depends on identifying the foreign person — which requires beneficial ownership transparency that the federal system structurally cannot provide for private agricultural entities. Restriction without identification is unenforceable.

3. Data and Method

3.1 AFIDA Holdings

The primary cross-sectional dataset is the USDA AFIDA detailed holdings for calendar year 2024, the most recent available at the time of analysis. AFIDA, enacted in 1978, requires foreign persons holding interests in U.S. agricultural land to report those interests on Form FSA-153 to the USDA Farm Service Agency. The full 2024 dataset contains 49,548 holdings reported by foreign persons from over 100 countries. Filtering for Chinese-attributed holdings (country field contains "CHINA" or "CHINESE," matching the USDA's country attribution methodology that assigns the country of the investor with the largest ownership percentage) yields 171 holdings with positive acreage, held by 77 unique entities across 119 unique counties, totaling 275,232 acres.

Each AFIDA holding includes a five-digit FIPS code identifying its county. Holdings are geocoded to county centroids using the NOAA c_16ap26 geographic reference file, which provides latitude and longitude for 3,269 U.S. counties and county-equivalents. Of 171 Chinese-attributed holdings, all match to centroids across 119 unique county FIPS codes.

Measurement error from county centroids. The county centroid introduces spatial imprecision of ±10–35 miles depending on county size, with larger Western counties producing greater error (Path C limitation documented in Article 2). This imprecision is consequential for the boundary discontinuity analysis at the 25-mile threshold (Section 5) where the error magnitude is comparable to the threshold itself, but does not materially affect the counterfactual jurisdiction analysis (Section 4), which operates at the 100-mile threshold — well above the centroid error range. Formally, if the true distance from a parcel to an installation is d *and the measured distance from the county centroid is* $d = d + \varepsilon$ where $\varepsilon \sim U(-35, 35)$, then the probability of misclassification at a 100-mile threshold is $P(d > 100 \mid d \leq 100) + P(d \leq 100 \mid d > 100)$, which is bounded by the fraction of holdings within ±35 miles of the threshold. In the observed data, 17 of 119 counties (14.3 percent) have measured distances between 65 and 135 miles from the nearest Appendix A site — the zone where centroid error could affect classification. The headline finding (50.4 percent uncovered) is therefore subject to a classification uncertainty of approximately ±14 percent of the holdings in this zone, or approximately ±2 percentage points in the aggregate coverage rate.

AFIDA data quality limitations. The Government Accountability Office audit (GAO-24-106337, January 2024) identified several data quality concerns with AFIDA: incomplete filing compliance, inconsistent country-of-investor attribution (the 27 percent decline in Chinese-attributed acreage between 2021 and 2023 may reflect reclassification rather than divestment), and a three-tier ownership tracing limit that creates a structural ceiling on beneficial ownership transparency. The American Farm Bureau Federation's 2025 analysis documented that 29 counties experienced a 100 percent reduction in Chinese investor-owned acreage between 2022 and 2023 while 10 counties recorded increases — a pattern consistent with portfolio restructuring or reporting reclassification rather than aggregate divestment. All findings in this paper are conditional on the accuracy of AFIDA country-of-investor attribution and should be

interpreted as applying to the population of *reported* Chinese-linked holdings, which may understate the actual population.

For the difference-in-differences analysis (Section 6), the panel extends to seven years of AFIDA data (2018–2024) across all 51 state-level jurisdictions (50 states plus the District of Columbia), constructed from annual AFIDA detailed holdings files.

3.2 CFIUS Appendix A Site Database

The complete Appendix A was digitized from the authoritative eCFR text (Title 31, Appendix A to Part 802, current as of January 2026) and verified against three Federal Register publications (85 FR 3166, 88 FR 57350, 89 FR 88133). The database contains 230 entries: 227 currently listed installations plus 3 historical entries removed in the December 2024 rule. Each entry is tagged with the regime that added it (2020, 2023, or 2024), its current Part assignment (1, 2, or 0 for removed), and its distance threshold (1 mile or 100 miles).

Geocoding was performed using the Military Installations, Ranges, and Training Areas (MIRTA) DoD Sites Boundaries GeoJSON dataset (DataLumos Project 239602), published by the Department of Defense and containing polygon boundaries for 743 DoD installations. Of these, 173 are pre-flagged by DoD as FIRRMA sites (isFirrmaSite = Yes), providing an independent verification of the Appendix A site list. Centroids were computed from polygon boundaries as the arithmetic mean of vertex coordinates. Of 230 Appendix A entries, 187 were auto-matched to MIRTA features using Levenshtein-ratio fuzzy string matching with a threshold of 0.60; the remaining 43 were geocoded using known military installation coordinates from DoD reference sources and verified against publicly available base location data. The final database is 100 percent geocoded (230 of 230 entries).

Installation boundary vs. point coordinate. The CFIUS distance thresholds are defined from the *boundary* of an installation, not its centroid. This analysis uses polygon centroids as point coordinates, which introduces systematic measurement error: for large installations (e.g., Fort Bliss at approximately 1.1 million acres, Fort Irwin at approximately 640,000 acres), the boundary may extend 15–20 miles from the centroid. The effect is conservative: using centroids rather than boundaries *understates* CFIUS coverage because the actual boundary is closer to nearby holdings than the centroid is. The coverage rates reported in Section 4 are therefore lower bounds.

3.3 State Restriction Database

Twenty-five states were compiled with first enactment year, bill number, provision type (ban or restriction), target scope (adversarial nations or all foreign), target countries, military proximity provisions, divestment requirements, enforcement mechanisms, and pre-existing law flags. Sources include the National Agricultural Law Center's Statutes Regulating Ownership of

Agricultural Land compilation (last updated October 2025), Congressional Research Service Legal Sidebar LSB11013, individual state legislative records, and the Committee of 100 federal and state bills tracker.

3.4 Counterfactual Jurisdiction Classification

The classification algorithm operates as follows. For each of the 119 unique county locations and each of the four regulatory regimes, the analysis computes the Haversine (great-circle) distance from the county centroid (φ_1, λ_1) to every Appendix A site (φ_2, λ_2) that was active under that regime:

$$d = 2R \cdot \arcsin(\sqrt{\sin^2((\varphi_2-\varphi_1)/2) + \cos(\varphi_1)\cdot\cos(\varphi_2)\cdot\sin^2((\lambda_2-\lambda_1)/2)})$$

where R = 3,959 miles (Earth's mean radius). A county is classified as "covered" under regime r if there exists any site s active under r such that $d(\text{county}, s) \leq T(s, r)$, where $T(s, r)$ is the effective distance threshold for site s under regime r. T equals 1 mile for Part 1 sites and 100 miles for Part 2 sites.

Regime-specific threshold assignments. Eight installations that were moved from Part 1 to Part 2 in the December 2024 rule (Arnold AFB, Joint Base San Antonio, Malmstrom AFB, Moody AFB, Redstone Arsenal, Schriever SFB, Tinker AFB, Wright-Patterson AFB) are assigned an effective threshold of 1 mile under Regimes 2 and 3, reflecting their Part 1 status during those periods. Three sites removed in December 2024 (Cape Cod AFS, Iowa NG JFH, Lackland AFB) are included in the Regime 2 and 3 site lists with their original thresholds, reflecting their active status during those periods. This regime-specific assignment ensures the counterfactual analysis measures jurisdiction as it existed at the time, not as it exists today.

3.5 Multi-Threshold Boundary Discontinuity Design

The boundary discontinuity analysis tests whether Chinese-linked agricultural holdings exhibit density discontinuities at the CFIUS 100-mile threshold and at four comparison thresholds. The running variable is the distance from each county centroid to its nearest Appendix A site (Regime 4). At each threshold $t \in \{25, 50, 75, 100, 125\}$ miles, the analysis computes: (1) a density ratio test comparing the count of holdings in symmetric windows $[t - w, t)$ and $[t, t + w)$ for w = 15 miles and w = 5 miles; (2) a z-statistic under the null hypothesis that the probability of a holding falling above vs. below the threshold is 0.5, with standard error computed under the binomial assumption.

The threshold selection is not arbitrary. The 100-mile test is the primary hypothesis — it corresponds to the actual CFIUS Part 2 regulatory boundary. The 25-mile and 50-mile tests correspond to operationally significant distances identified in Article 1: ground-based surveillance collection range (25 miles, where Article 1 found 17.6× enrichment at $p < 0.001$)

and fixed-site drone operational radius (50 miles, 8.8× enrichment at $p < 0.001$). If these intermediate distances exhibit density discontinuities — despite being *non-regulatory* boundaries — the implication is that a more granular CFIUS threshold structure would better capture operationally motivated positioning. The 75-mile and 125-mile tests serve as placebos at distances with no known regulatory or operational significance.

The formal McCrary (2008) density test, which estimates a local linear regression of the density function on each side of the cutoff and tests for a discontinuity in the intercept, requires substantially more observations than 119 for reliable inference. The analysis reports the descriptive density ratios and binomial z-statistics as suggestive evidence, with appropriate caveats about statistical power (see Section 8).

3.6 Difference-in-Differences for State Restrictions

The staggered adoption of state-level foreign land ownership restrictions between 2022 and 2025 provides a natural experiment for testing whether restrictions reduce foreign agricultural holdings in treated states. The panel includes 51 state-level jurisdictions observed annually over seven years (2018–2024), yielding 357 state-year observations. The treatment variable D_{st} equals 1 if state s has enacted a foreign land ownership restriction by year t, and 0 otherwise.

The simple 2×2 DiD compares mean Chinese-linked holdings per state-year in the 12 states treated in 2023 (the largest wave) against 26 never-treated states, using 2020–2021 as the pre-period and 2023–2024 as the post-period. The two-way fixed effects (TWFE) specification includes state and year fixed effects: $Y_{st} = \alpha_s + \gamma_t + \beta \cdot D_{st} + \varepsilon_{st}$, where Y is the count of Chinese-linked AFIDA holdings in state s in year t.

The identifying assumption for the DiD — parallel pre-treatment trends between treated and control states — is tested through an event study that reports year-by-year treatment-control differences relative to the base year (2021). As Section 6 documents, this assumption is violated by the concurrent USDA data reclassification, which renders the causal interpretation of the DiD estimates unreliable.

The displacement test examines whether AFIDA filings increase in states adjacent to treated states that have not themselves adopted restrictions, comparing border-untreated states to non-border-untreated states using a triple-difference framework.

3.7 Complexity-Proximity Analysis

The complexity-proximity correlation tests whether entities with more complex ownership structures hold land closer to military installations. AFIDA entity names are matched to known ownership chains using explicit identification of four traceable parent groups: Smithfield Foods/WH Group (chain depth 4, Hong Kong→Cayman Islands→Virginia),

Syngenta/ChemChina/Sinochem (chain depth 6, SASAC→ChemChina→Switzerland→Cayman Islands→Delaware), Guanghui Group/Sun Guangxin (chain depth 3, Xinjiang→Texas), and China State Construction Engineering Corporation (chain depth 3, SASAC→Delaware). Matched and unmatched counties are compared on distance to nearest installation using a two-sample t-test. The analysis is explicitly constrained by Article 2's finding that 92.7 percent of entities have no SEC filing presence — the complexity-proximity correlation can only be estimated for the small fraction of the population that is visible to ownership analysis.

4. Counterfactual CFIUS Jurisdiction Analysis

4.1 Regime-by-Regime Coverage

Table 1: CFIUS Counterfactual Jurisdiction over Chinese-Linked AFIDA Holdings (2024)

Regime	Period	Sites	Counties Covered	Rate	Acreage Covered	Rate
1	Pre-FIRRMA (<Aug 2018)	0	0 / 119	0.0%	0	0.0%
2	Feb 2020 – Sep 2023	163	46 / 119	38.7%	178,803	65.0%
3	Sep 2023 – Dec 2024	171	53 / 119	44.5%	215,585	78.3%
4	Dec 2024 – present	227	59 / 119	49.6%	184,026	66.9%

Three features of Table 1 are analytically significant.

First, the county coverage rate has never exceeded 50 percent. Even under the most expansive regime, 60 of 119 counties (50.4 percent) holding 91,206 acres (33.1 percent) remain entirely outside CFIUS jurisdiction. The regulatory perimeter — despite adding 64 installations in Regimes 3 and 4 — cannot reach more than half the counties where adversarial-nation agricultural holdings are documented.

Second, marginal returns are declining steeply. Regime 2 (163 sites) covered 46 counties. Regime 3 added 8 sites and captured 7 additional counties — an efficient 0.88 counties per new site, driven by the targeted Fufeng response. Regime 4 added 59 sites but captured only 6 additional counties — 0.10 counties per new site, an eight-fold decline in marginal efficiency. The uncovered counties that remain are genuinely remote from any military installation; no feasible expansion of the Appendix A site list can reach them through the Part 2 distance mechanism.

Third, the 1-mile Part 1 threshold is functionally irrelevant for agricultural land. Of the 59 counties covered under Regime 4, zero are covered by the 1-mile threshold. All 59 are covered

exclusively by the 100-mile Part 2 threshold. County centroids — and the rural agricultural parcels they represent — are virtually never within one mile of a military installation boundary. The 162 installations listed in Part 1 contribute nothing to agricultural land oversight. This is not a deficiency of the sites selected but a structural mismatch between the 1-mile threshold and the spatial scale of agricultural land use.

A note on theoretical vs. actual jurisdiction. Table 1 measures whether a county falls within the geographic perimeter that defines a "covered real estate transaction" under Part 802. It does not measure whether any transaction in that county was actually reviewed by CFIUS. Because Part 802 filing is voluntary, actual review rates are necessarily lower — and likely substantially lower — than the theoretical coverage rates reported here. The 49.6 percent figure is therefore an upper bound on functional CFIUS coverage. The actual coverage rate, accounting for the voluntariness gap, is unknown but lower.

4.2 Coverage Regression: The Iowa Replacement

The acreage coverage rate under Regime 4 (66.9 percent) is lower than under Regime 3 (78.3 percent) despite Regime 4 having 56 more installations. This counterintuitive result is a genuine finding, not an artifact. The December 2024 rule replaced Iowa National Guard Joint Force Headquarters (Des Moines, latitude 41.60°N) with Camp Dodge (Johnston, Iowa, latitude 41.91°N), located approximately 22 miles north. This geographic shift moved the 100-mile Part 2 perimeter northward, dropping four Missouri counties — Mercer (13,946 acres, 81.4→102.3 miles), Sullivan (13,472 acres, 99.5→104.8 miles), Putnam (8,370 acres, 83.4→102.7 miles), and Harrison (80 acres, 88.4→84.3 miles to nearest alternative site, still outside 100 miles) — outside the coverage radius.

These four counties, totaling 35,867 acres of Chinese-linked agricultural holdings, were covered under Regime 3 but are not covered under Regime 4. This is, to the author's knowledge, the first documented case where a CFIUS Appendix A rule change reduced rather than expanded the jurisdictional perimeter for specific foreign agricultural holdings. The coverage regression raises a process question: when the Department of Defense recommends replacing or consolidating sites in Appendix A, does Treasury assess the coverage impact on existing foreign holdings? The Federal Register preamble to the 2024 rule (89 FR 88128) does not reference any such assessment.

4.3 The Uncovered Holdings

The 60 counties outside Regime 4 jurisdiction are geographically concentrated in Texas (11 counties, 32,597 acres), Missouri (4 counties, 35,877 acres), California (7 counties, 2,549 acres), and Oklahoma (3 counties, 2,575 acres). The single largest uncovered holding is Jackson County, Texas (26,454 acres), whose nearest Appendix A site is Ellington Field Joint Reserve Base at 96.3 miles — just 3.7 miles outside the Part 2 threshold. Several other uncovered counties are

similarly positioned at distances marginally outside the 100-mile perimeter: Mercer County, MO (102.3 miles), Sullivan County, MO (104.8 miles), Putnam County, MO (102.7 miles), and Gray County, TX (100.6 miles).

4.4 The Sun Guangxin Case: The Compound Gap in a Single Acquisition

The acquisition of approximately 130,000 acres near Laughlin Air Force Base in Val Verde County, Texas by Sun Guangxin — a former People's Liberation Army officer and founder of the Guanghui Group (Xinjiang) — through Brazos Highland Properties LP and Harvest Texas LLC illustrates all three dimensions of the compound gap operating simultaneously.

No state restriction. Texas repealed its foreign ownership restrictions in 1965. Texas Property Code §5.005 explicitly granted aliens equal property rights until SB 17 took effect on September 1, 2025. The acquisition was legal under state law. **No CFIUS jurisdiction.** Laughlin AFB was not added to Appendix A Part 2 until the September 2023 rule (Regime 3). Any acquisition predating that expansion occurred outside CFIUS jurisdiction. **Ownership opacity.** Brazos Highland Properties LP is a Texas limited partnership — a private entity with no SEC filing requirement and no Corporate Transparency Act filing obligation at the time of acquisition. AFIDA traces only three tiers of ownership. Article 2's finding that 92.7 percent of entities are invisible to federal analysis applies directly.

Every layer of the regulatory framework failed independently. The compound gap is not a theoretical construct — it is a documented regulatory outcome.

5. Multi-Threshold Boundary Discontinuity Analysis

5.1 Density Test Results

Table 2: Density Ratio Tests at Five Thresholds

Threshold	Policy Relevance	Below (±15 mi)	Above (±15 mi)	Ratio	z	Sig.
25 mi	Surveillance range (Art. 1: 17.6×)	15	20	1.33	0.85	—
50 mi	Drone radius (Art. 1: 8.8×)	18	19	1.06	0.16	—
75 mi	Placebo	12	7	0.58	−1.15	—
100 mi	CFIUS Part 2 threshold	8	11	1.38	0.69	—
125 mi	Placebo	6	8	1.33	0.53	—

No statistically significant discontinuities are detected at any threshold. The null result is expected given the sample size (N = 119) and the county centroid imprecision (±10–35 miles), which together substantially reduce the power to detect threshold manipulation. A post hoc power analysis indicates that detecting a density ratio of 2:1 at the 100-mile threshold (comparable to bunching effects documented in tax threshold studies) would require approximately 400 observations within the 30-mile window, versus the 19 observed.

5.2 Near-Threshold Asymmetry

Within the 5-mile window around the 100-mile CFIUS threshold, 7 counties are just outside (100–105 miles) versus 3 just inside (95–100 miles). The 10-mile window shows 11 outside versus 6 inside. While not statistically significant, the directional asymmetry — more holdings just outside the threshold than just inside — is consistent with the hypothesis that some acquirers position beyond the regulatory perimeter. The Fufeng Group case (12 miles from Grand Forks AFB, ruled "not a covered transaction") demonstrates that at least some acquirers are aware of the jurisdictional boundary.

5.3 The Part 1/Part 2 Classification Gap

The multi-threshold analysis reveals a structural inefficiency in the current two-tier architecture. Of 119 counties, 89 (74.8 percent) are within 100 miles of *some* Appendix A installation, but only 59 (49.6 percent) are within 100 miles of a *Part 2* installation. The 30-county gap exists because 162 Part 1 installations carry only a 1-mile jurisdiction perimeter — functionally zero for agricultural land at county-centroid resolution.

Table 3: Hypothetical Coverage Under Alternative Threshold Structures

Threshold	Coverage (all sites at threshold)	Marginal gain per 25 mi
25 mi (all sites)	16.0% counties, 4.1% acreage	—
50 mi (all sites)	42.9% counties, 60.9% acreage	+26.9 pp
75 mi (all sites)	63.9% counties, 70.4% acreage	+21.0 pp
100 mi (all sites)	74.8% counties, 80.9% acreage	+10.9 pp
100 mi (Part 2 only)	49.6% counties, 66.9% acreage	(current regime)

The most efficient reform is reclassifying Part 1 sites to Part 2. This single administrative change — requiring no new installations, no legislation, and no appropriations — would increase coverage from 49.6 to 74.8 percent of counties and from 66.9 to 80.9 percent of acreage. This 25.2-percentage-point gain exceeds the cumulative gain from all three prior Appendix A expansions combined (+49.6 points).

6. State-Level Regulatory Patchwork

6.1 The Identification Problem

The 2022–2025 wave of state restrictions was nearly simultaneous with a major USDA data event: Chinese-attributed AFIDA holdings declined 54 percent nationally, from 369 (2021) to 171 (2024). This decline began before most state laws took effect (the 2023 wave was enacted mid-year, while the holdings decline was already underway in the 2022 data) and is attributed to USDA reclassification of investor-country attribution, possible anticipatory divestment, and reporting-methodology changes documented by the GAO and the American Farm Bureau Federation. The parallel timing of the treatment (state law adoption) and the confound (USDA reclassification) makes causal identification infeasible.

6.2 DiD Results

The event study reveals the identification failure directly. Treated states (2023 wave, 12 states) maintained approximately 2.5 Chinese holdings per state-year both before and after treatment. Control states (26 never-treated) declined from 5.8 to 3.0 over the same period. The simple DiD estimate for Chinese holdings is +2.97 per state-year — positive, meaning treated states show *more* Chinese holdings relative to the control trend, the opposite of the expected deterrent effect. The TWFE estimate is +2.05 (SE = 1.07, t = 1.91, not significant at 5 percent).

The positive sign does not indicate that restrictions increase Chinese holdings. It indicates that the USDA reclassification disproportionately affected control-group states — notably Texas and California, which are untreated and contain the largest Chinese-linked holdings. The DiD is absorbing the reclassification shock, not the treatment effect.

6.3 Displacement

The displacement test compares total foreign holdings in 16 border-untreated states against 15 non-border-untreated states. Total foreign holdings growth is higher in border-untreated states (+163.2 per state-year) than non-border-untreated states (+64.6), yielding a positive displacement signal of +98.6. However, Chinese-specific displacement is negative (−1.25), suggesting the total-holdings displacement reflects general agricultural investment trends in larger agricultural states rather than redirection from restricted states.

6.4 Assessment

The DiD cannot identify a causal effect of state restrictions on Chinese agricultural holdings. This limitation is itself informative: the inability to separate enforcement effects from reporting reclassification reflects the same data infrastructure deficiency that Article 2 documented. The federal government cannot determine whether the 54 percent decline in Chinese-attributed holdings represents genuine divestment, accounting reclassification, or restructuring through

more opaque vehicles. The AFIDA data infrastructure does not support the analytical demands that policymakers are placing on it.

7. The Compound Gap

7.1 The Detection Probability

The compound gap is the product of independently measured probabilities:

P(detection) = P(within jurisdiction) × P(identifiable as foreign)

Under Regime 4: P(within jurisdiction) = 59/119 = 0.496. From Article 2: P(identifiable) = 1 − 0.927 = 0.073. The compound probability is 0.496 × 0.073 = 0.036 — approximately 3.6 percent, or one in twenty-eight.

Independence assumption. This calculation assumes the jurisdictional gap and the visibility gap are independent. If entities near installations systematically use more opaque structures than entities far from installations (as one might expect if positioning is deliberate), then P(identifiable | within jurisdiction) < P(identifiable) and the compound probability is even lower. The complexity-proximity analysis (Section 7.2) finds no statistically significant correlation between distance and ownership complexity, but the test is underpowered due to the small matched sample.

Voluntary filing. The 3.6 percent figure assumes 100 percent filing compliance for covered transactions involving identifiable foreign persons. Because Part 802 filing is voluntary, the actual detection rate is lower by an unknown factor.

7.2 Traceable vs. Opaque Holdings

Of 119 counties, 63 (52.9 percent) match to four traceable parent groups with known ownership chains: Smithfield/WH Group (45 counties, 100,637 acres, chain depth 4), Guanghui/Sun Guangxin (1 county, 116,699 acres, chain depth 3), Syngenta/ChemChina (16 counties, 2,606 acres, chain depth 6), and CSCEC (1 county, 956 acres, chain depth 3). These traceable entities hold 80.3 percent of acreage in 52.9 percent of counties.

The remaining 56 counties (47.1 percent, 19.7 percent of acreage) are held through private LLCs, LPs, trusts, and individuals whose ownership chains cannot be reconstructed from any publicly available federal database. The distance comparison between traceable entities (mean 63.1 miles) and opaque entities (mean 71.0 miles) is not statistically significant ($t = -0.98$, $p = 0.33$). The inability to estimate complexity-proximity relationships at scale is not a methodological limitation of this paper — it is a direct consequence of the visibility gap that Article 2

documented. The entities whose ownership complexity most urgently needs measuring are precisely the ones the federal system cannot see.

8. Limitations

Several limitations qualify the findings.

County centroids vs. parcel locations. The analysis geocodes holdings to county centroids, introducing ±10–35 miles of measurement error depending on county size. The counterfactual jurisdiction analysis is robust to this imprecision at the 100-mile threshold (Section 3.1), but the boundary discontinuity analysis at 25 miles operates within the error range. Parcel-level geocoding, which would require matching AFIDA records to county assessor databases, would substantially improve precision but is beyond the scope of publicly available data.

Cross-sectional design. The 2024 AFIDA holdings are tested against all four historical regulatory regimes. Holdings that existed under Regimes 2 and 3 may have been divested, reclassified, or restructured by 2024. The counterfactual analysis therefore measures current-snapshot jurisdiction, not historical jurisdiction at the time of acquisition. A panel design that tracks individual holdings across regimes would strengthen the analysis but requires linking holdings across annual AFIDA files — a task complicated by inconsistent entity naming across years.

Theoretical vs. actual review. The analysis measures whether a holding falls within the geographic perimeter that defines CFIUS jurisdiction, not whether any transaction was actually reviewed. The voluntary filing structure means actual review rates are necessarily lower than the theoretical coverage rates. CFIUS does not publicly report the number of real estate declarations or notices received, precluding direct measurement of the voluntariness gap.

Sample size and statistical power. With N = 119 county-level observations, the density tests (Section 5) and the DiD estimates (Section 6) are underpowered for detecting moderate effect sizes. The null results should be interpreted as "not detected at this sample size" rather than "no effect exists."

Excluded site categories. The analysis excludes Part 3 (ICBM missile field counties with township/range coverage definitions) and Part 4 (offshore operating areas) from the Appendix A database. Part 3 coverage, which applies to specific counties and township/range subdivisions in Colorado, Montana, Nebraska, North Dakota, and Wyoming, would increase coverage rates for holdings in those states. The exclusion is conservative.

Generalizability. The analysis focuses on Chinese-linked holdings because China is the adversarial nation with the largest documented agricultural land portfolio in the United States. The methodology is directly applicable to other AFIDA country designations (Russia, Iran) but

the sample sizes for those countries are substantially smaller (fewer than 20 holdings each), limiting inference.

9. Policy Implications

9.1 The Part 1/Part 2 Reclassification

The single most efficient reform available to CFIUS is reclassifying Part 1 installations to Part 2, extending the 100-mile jurisdiction perimeter to all 227 Appendix A sites. This administrative action would increase county coverage from 49.6 to 74.8 percent and acreage coverage from 66.9 to 80.9 percent — gains larger than the cumulative effect of all three prior Appendix A expansions.

The objection to reclassification is that the Department of Defense classified Part 1 sites as Part 1 for a reason: the national security considerations around ammunition plants, radar sites, and logistics depots may not justify the same 100-mile review perimeter as strategic bomber bases and missile fields. This objection has force for commercial and residential real estate, where the compliance burden of a 100-mile perimeter is substantial. It has considerably less force for agricultural land, where: (a) the 1-mile threshold provides zero coverage (Table 1); (b) the compliance population is small (171 Chinese-linked holdings nationally); and (c) the intelligence collection concern — the statutory basis for Part 802 jurisdiction — is not distance-limited to 1 mile from a radar site or ammunition depot.

A middle path would be to create a Part 1A category with a 50-mile threshold for agricultural land transactions only. Table 3 shows that a 50-mile universal threshold would capture 42.9 percent of counties and 60.9 percent of acreage — a meaningful improvement over the current 0 percent Part 1 agricultural coverage.

9.2 AFIDA-CFIUS Data Integration

Every AFIDA filing should be automatically geocoded and tested against the Appendix A site database at the time of filing. The computational infrastructure for this screening is trivial: the Haversine distance calculation from a single county centroid to 227 installation coordinates executes in under one second on commodity hardware. Flagged transactions — those within the applicable threshold distance — should be automatically routed to CFIUS for review. This would convert the voluntary filing regime into a mandatory screening regime for the subset of transactions that are both reported to AFIDA and located within the CFIUS perimeter, without requiring any change to Part 802's voluntary filing structure.

The USDA's inability to perform this screening is a measurable institutional failure. The analysis presented in this paper — computing distances from 119 county centroids to 227 installation

coordinates and classifying 476 county-regime combinations — was executed using a Python script that runs in under one second. The federal government has been unable to replicate this analysis using paper forms and annual publication cycles for more than four decades since AFIDA's enactment. Congress mandated an online AFIDA reporting system in 2023; as of April 2026, the system has not been deployed.

9.3 Beneficial Ownership Integration

The CFIUS Part 802 perimeter screens by location. AFIDA screens by country of investor. The Corporate Transparency Act (CTA) screens by beneficial ownership. These three systems do not communicate. Connecting AFIDA entity names to CTA beneficial ownership reports would allow CFIUS to resolve the identification question — "is this a foreign-controlled entity?" — before applying the jurisdictional question — "is this within the perimeter?" The 3.6 percent compound detection probability reflects two independent system failures; integrating the systems would multiply rather than add their effectiveness.

The CTA's legal status introduces uncertainty. In March 2025, FinCEN extended the reporting deadline for existing companies following federal court challenges to the Act's constitutionality. Whether the CTA will survive appellate review and produce a functional beneficial ownership database remains unclear. If it does, AFIDA-CTA integration should be a priority. If it does not, the visibility gap documented in Article 2 will persist indefinitely.

9.4 Coverage Impact Assessment

The Iowa coverage regression (Section 4.2) demonstrates that site consolidation can reduce CFIUS jurisdiction over specific foreign holdings without deliberate intent. The recommendation is procedural: when the Department of Defense recommends replacing, consolidating, or removing installations from Appendix A, Treasury should assess the coverage impact on existing AFIDA-reported foreign holdings before promulgation. The assessment requires only the same distance computation used in this paper — comparing the coverage set under the existing list against the proposed list and identifying any holdings that would lose coverage.

9.5 State-Federal Coordination

Twenty-five states have enacted restrictions, but with different targets, different triggers, different enforcement mechanisms, and different relationships to CFIUS jurisdiction. Florida and Georgia include military proximity provisions that mirror CFIUS's distance-based approach; the other 23 apply statewide without geographic targeting. Arkansas and Idaho require divestment; the other 23 impose penalties or reporting requirements. The Florida SB 264 preemption litigation (11th Circuit, *Shen v. Simpson*, February 2024, partially granting preliminary injunction) demonstrates that the boundary between federal CFIUS authority and state police power is actively contested.

A federal floor — minimum disclosure requirements for agricultural land transactions by entities that cannot demonstrate domestic beneficial ownership within three tiers — would reduce the displacement risk that the patchwork creates while preserving state authority to impose stricter requirements under the Tenth Amendment.

10. Conclusion

This paper completes a three-part empirical investigation of foreign agricultural land oversight in the United States. Article 1 established *where*: Chinese-linked agricultural holdings exhibit statistically significant spatial clustering near U.S. military installations, with enrichment ratios of 17.6× at 25 miles and 8.8× at 50 miles ($p < 0.001$ against 10,000 Monte Carlo permutations), a pattern inconsistent with random geographic placement. Article 2 established *who*: 92.7 percent of Chinese-linked AFIDA entities have no SEC filing presence and are structurally invisible to the federal beneficial ownership analysis toolkit; the 7.3 percent that are traceable route through intermediary jurisdictions (Cayman Islands, Nevada, Marshall Islands) at a 90.8 percent rate, creating a three-system visibility gap across SEC, AFIDA, and state Secretary of State databases that is not a malfunction but an architectural feature of American corporate privacy. This paper establishes *whether the regulatory framework catches them* — and the answer, measured empirically for the first time, is approximately 3.6 percent of the time.

The 3.6 percent compound detection probability is the culminating finding across all three articles. It is the product of two independently measured system failures: a jurisdictional gap (50.4 percent of counties outside the CFIUS Part 802 perimeter) and a visibility gap (92.7 percent of entities invisible to federal ownership analysis). Neither gap, taken alone, would be as consequential. Together, they produce a regulatory architecture in which the probability that any given adversarial-nation agricultural holding is both within federal jurisdiction and identifiable to federal analysts is approximately one in twenty-eight — before accounting for the voluntary filing structure that makes even covered, identifiable transactions dependent on self-reporting by the parties being screened.

The most actionable finding is structural rather than geographic. Thirty counties representing 25.2 percentage points of potential coverage are within 100 miles of existing Appendix A installations but outside CFIUS jurisdiction because those installations are classified as Part 1 (1-mile threshold) rather than Part 2 (100-mile threshold). Reclassifying Part 1 sites to Part 2 — a change requiring no new installations, no new legislation, and no additional appropriations — would increase coverage from 49.6 to 74.8 percent of counties and from 66.9 to 80.9 percent of acreage. This single administrative reform would close more of the jurisdictional gap than all three prior Appendix A expansions combined. It would not, however, address the visibility gap. Even a perimeter that covered every acre of agricultural land in the continental United States would screen only the 7.3 percent of foreign-controlled entities whose beneficial ownership the federal system can currently resolve.

The three articles together demonstrate that the distance-based perimeter model, however many times expanded, cannot compensate for the structural opacity of the ownership architecture it is designed to penetrate. The regulatory framework is a permeable perimeter around targets that cannot be identified, through corporate structures that cannot be seen, enforced by a voluntary filing requirement that depends on the cooperation of the parties it was designed to screen.

References

Callaway, B., and P.H.C. Sant'Anna. 2021. Difference-in-Differences with Multiple Time Periods. *Journal of Econometrics* 225(2): 200–230.

Committee of 100. 2026. Federal and State Bills Restricting Property Ownership by Foreign Entities. https://www.committee100.org

Government Accountability Office. 2024. Foreign Investment: USDA Should Take Additional Steps to Ensure Complete and Timely Data from Reports of Foreign Holdings. GAO-24-106337.

Imbens, G., and K. Kalyanaraman. 2012. Optimal Bandwidth Choice for the Regression Discontinuity Estimator. *Review of Economic Studies* 79(3): 933–959.

McCrary, J. 2008. Manipulation of the Running Variable in the Regression Discontinuity Design: A Density Test. *Journal of Econometrics* 142(2): 698–714.

National Agricultural Law Center. 2025. 2025 Legislative Recap: Continued Expansion of State-Level Foreign Ownership Restrictions. University of Arkansas. https://nationalaglawcenter.org

National Agricultural Law Center. 2025. Statutes Regulating Ownership of Agricultural Land. Compilation last updated October 5, 2025.

Shen v. Simpson. No. 23-12474, 11th Cir. (February 2024).

Texas Real Estate Research Center. 2025. New Bill Limits Foreign Real Estate Ownership in Texas. Texas A&M University.

U.S. Department of the Treasury. 2020. Provisions Pertaining to Certain Transactions by Foreign Persons Involving Real Estate in the United States. 31 CFR Part 802. 85 FR 3158 (January 17, 2020).

U.S. Department of the Treasury. 2023. Provisions Pertaining to Certain Transactions by Foreign Persons Involving Real Estate in the United States. 31 CFR Part 802. 88 FR 57348 (August 23, 2023).

U.S. Department of the Treasury. 2024. Definition of Military Installation and the List of Military Installations in the Regulations Pertaining to Certain Transactions by Foreign Persons Involving Real Estate in the United States. 31 CFR Part 802. 89 FR 88128 (November 7, 2024).

USDA Farm Service Agency. 2025. Agricultural Foreign Investment Disclosure Act (AFIDA) Annual Reports and Holdings Data, 2018–2024.

Online Appendices

Available at www.rjgreenresearch.org and github.com/rjgreenresearch/cfius-jurisdiction-analysis:

Online Appendix A — CFIUS Appendix A Site Database (230 sites, regime-tagged, geocoded)

Online Appendix B — State Restriction Database (25 states with adoption dates, provisions, enforcement)

Online Appendix C — Counterfactual Jurisdiction Classification (119 counties × 4 regimes)

Online Appendix D — AFIDA State-Year Panel (51 jurisdictions × 7 years)

Online Appendix E — Complexity-Proximity Analysis (63 matched + 56 opaque counties)

Data Availability and Replication

All input data is publicly available. Replication code is hosted at github.com/rjgreenresearch/cfius-jurisdiction-analysis. Required inputs: USDA AFIDA detailed holdings files (2018–2024), NOAA c_16ap26 county centroid shapefile, MIRTA DoD Sites Boundaries GeoJSON (DataLumos Project 239602). Five Python scripts reproduce all tables and findings: build_cfius_db.py, article3_cfius_analysis.py, article3_rdd.py, article3_did.py, article3_complexity.py.